



2025 Spring Math

HTOP,PDE,COMPLEX,ALGO

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Contents

1	Functions of Complex Variables	2
1.1	Lecture 1 (02-03) – Complex numbers	2
1.1.1	Introduction	2
1.2	Lecture 2 (02-05) – Complex numbers	3
1.2.1	The algebra of complex numbers	3
1.3	Recitation 1(02-07)	6
1.4	Lecture 3 (02-10) – Algebraic Structure of Complex numbers	7
1.4.1	Algebraic Structure of Complex numbers	7
1.4.2	Square roots	8
2	Honors Theory of Probability	10
2.1	Lecture 1 (02-03) – Introduction to Probability	10
2.1.1	Intro	10
2.1.2	Probability Space	11
2.2	Lecture 2 (02-05) – Algebra	12
2.2.1	algebra and σ -algebra	12
2.3	Recitation 1 (02-07) – Problem Solving (Algebra)	15
2.3.1	Basic Set Theory	15
2.3.2	Limits of Sets	15
2.3.3	Exercise	16
2.4	Lecture 3 (02-10)	18
2.4.1	Content and Measure	19
3	Partial Differential Equations	22
3.1	Lecture 1 (02-03) – What are the PDEs?	22
3.1.1	What are the PDEs?	22
3.1.2	Classical solutions	22
3.1.3	Initial and Boundary Conditions	23
3.1.4	Linear and Nonlinear waves	23
3.2	Lecture 2 (02-05) – Uniform Transport and Traveling waves	24
3.2.1	uniform transport	24
3.2.2	Nonuniform transport	26
3.3	Lecture 3 (02-10)-Nonlinear transport and shocks	29
3.3.1	The wave equation:d'Alembert's formula	31
4	Algorithm	36
4.1	Lecture 1 (02-03) – Asymptotic bounds and big O	36
4.2	Recitation 1 (02-07)–Problem Solving	37

Chapter 1

Functions of Complex Variables

§1.1 Lecture 1 (02-03) Complex numbers

§1.1.1 Introduction

You know the sets

$$(R, +, \times) \text{ and } (Q, +, \times)$$

$Q(\sqrt{2}) = \{a + b\sqrt{2} | a, b \in Q\}$ $Q(\sqrt{2})$, they are infinite sets.

Definition 1.1.1: Fields

We say that a set F together with two binary operations, called addition $+, F \times F \rightarrow F$, and multiplication $\times, F \times F \rightarrow F$ satisfying:

- associativity $(a + b) + c = a + (b + c)$
- commutativity $a + b = b + a, ab = ba$
- existence of identities
there is a $O \in F$ such that $a + O = a$ for all $a \in F$
there is a $1 \in F$ such that $a \times 1 = a$ for all $a \in F$
- existence of inverses
for every $a \in F$ there is a $b \in F$ such that $a + b = O$
for every $a \in F$ there is a $b \in F$ such that $a \times b = 1$
- distributivity
 $a \times (b + c) = a \times b + a \times c$

Example 1: Fields

- For every prime number p , and $n \geq 0, n \in N$, there is a field $(F_{p^n}, +, \times)$ with $p^n = q$ elements (cardinality q).
- $(C, +, \times)$ is a field

Question: $(R^d, +), d \geq 2$, is there a multiplication, $\times$ such that $(R^d, +, \times)$ is a field?

- R^2 , scalar product, $x \cdot y = x_1y_1 + x_2y_2 \in R$ is not a field because $R^2 \times R^2 \rightarrow R$.
- cross product, not satisfying Definition 1 and 5.
- $d=2$, there is a good definition of multiplication, $(R^2, +, \times) \cong (C, +, \times)$.

Lemma 1.1.1

Consider the vector space $(\mathbb{R}^2, +)$
 Define the multiplication: $(a, b) \times (c, d) = (ac - bd, ad + bc)$
 Then $(\mathbb{R}^2, +, \times)$ is a field.

Proof:

- You can check that $\times$ is commutative and satisfies associativity and distributivity.
- We can check $(1, 0)$ is a multiplication identity.
- also if $(a, b) \neq (0, 0)$, then

$$(a, b) \times \left(\frac{a}{a^2 + b^2}, \frac{-b}{a^2 + b^2} \right) = \left(\frac{a^2 + b^2}{a^2 + b^2}, \frac{-ab + ab}{a^2 + b^2} \right) = (1, 0)$$

§1.2 Lecture 2 (02-05)Complex numbers

§1.2.1 The algebra of complex numbers

It is important to classify sets:

in Set Theory: bijection

in Topology: homeomorphism

For **Fields**: isomorphism

Definition 1.2.1: isomorphism

We say that fields F and F' are isomorphic if there exists a function

$$i : F \rightarrow F'$$

which is a bijection and preserve the binary operations

$$i(a + b) = i(a) + i(b)$$

and

$$i(ab) = i(a)i(b)$$

.

i is called an isomorphism and we write $F \cong F'$

Comments:

There is a unique field up to isomorphism of order (its cardinality)

$$p^n : F_{p^n}$$

Definition 1.2.2: subfield

Given a field $(F, +, \times)$, we say that $(E, +, \times)$ is a subfield of $(F, +, \times)$ if $E \subset F$ and the addition and multiplication of E is the same addition and multiplication of F .

Example 1: subfield

$$Q \subset R$$

$$Q \subset Q(\sqrt{2}) \subset R \subset R^2$$

Definition 1.2.3: complex number

Let F be a field such that:

- R is a subfield of F
- there is an element $i \in F$ which is the root of the equation

$$x^2 + 1 = 0 (i^2 = -1)$$

Then we define the field of complex numbers C as

$$C = \{x \in F : x = \alpha + i\beta, \alpha, \beta \in R\}$$

Comments:

- We need to show that there is at least one field F satisfying these properties.
Actually, $(F, +, \times) = (R, +, \times)$ satisfies these properties.
- $R' = \{x \in R : x = (\alpha, 0), \alpha \in R\} \cong R \rightarrow R$ is a subfield of R^2 .
- Define $i := (0, 1) \in R^2$

$$(a, b) \times (c, d) := (ac - bd, ad + bc)$$

Then,

$$i^2 = (0, 1)^2 = (0, 1) \times (0, 1) = (-1, 0)$$

Example 2: exercise

Set of 2×2 real matrices of the form

$$\begin{pmatrix} a & b \\ -b & a \end{pmatrix}, a, b \in R$$

This set together with the standard addition and multiplication of matrices is a field and it is isomorphic to $(R^2, +, \times)$.

$$F = R^2, C = R^2$$

Comments:

It turns out that any definition of C is unique (up to isomorphisms).

Lemma 1.2.1

Let F and F' be two fields satisfying the properties of the definition of complex numbers, then call $\mathbb{C}$ and $\mathbb{C}'$ the corresponding complex number fields. Then $\mathbb{C} \cong \mathbb{C}'$.

Proof:

Call $i \in \mathbb{C}$ and $i' \in \mathbb{C}'$ the square roots -1 .

Then:

$f : \mathbb{C} \rightarrow \mathbb{C}'$ defined as $f(\alpha + i\beta) = \alpha + i'\beta$ is an isomorphism

$$z = \alpha + i\beta, z' = \alpha' + i'\beta', w = \gamma + i\delta, w' = \gamma' + i'\delta'$$

Lemma 1.2.2

Consider the vector space $(\mathbb{R}, +)$. Then any multiplication ' $\times$ ' defined in this vector space which transforms it into a field $(\mathbb{R}, +, \times)$ is such that $(\mathbb{R}, +, \times) \cong \mathbb{C}$.

Proof:

Consider the elements

$$(1, 0) \text{ and } j = (0, 1) \in \mathbb{R}^2$$

Then any element of $\mathbb{R}^2$ can be written as $\alpha + j\beta, \alpha, \beta \in \mathbb{R}$

Then

$$j^2 = a + jb, a, b \in \mathbb{R}$$

Then,

$$\begin{aligned} j^2 - jb = a, j^2 - 2\frac{jb}{2} = a &\rightarrow j^2 - 2\frac{jb}{2} + \frac{b^2}{4} = a + \frac{b^2}{4} \\ \left(j - \frac{b}{2}\right)^2 &= a + \frac{b^2}{4} \end{aligned} \tag{1.1}$$

Define: $i = \frac{j - \frac{b}{2}}{\sqrt{a + \frac{b^2}{4}}}$

Claim:

$$a + \frac{b^2}{4} < 0$$

If:

$$a + \frac{b^2}{4} \geq 0$$

Then (1.1) can be written as

$$\rightarrow \left(j - \frac{b}{2}\right) + \sqrt{a + \frac{b^2}{4}} \left(j - \frac{b}{2}\right) - \sqrt{a + \frac{b^2}{4}} = 0$$

either

$$j - \frac{b}{2} = \sqrt{a + \frac{b^2}{4}}, j - \frac{b}{2} = -\sqrt{a + \frac{b^2}{4}}$$

§1.3 Complex numbers

The field of rationals $\mathcal{Q}$ is the fractional field of the integral domain $\mathcal{Z}$.
With the metric

$$d(x, y) = |x - y|$$

$$|x| = \max\{x, -x\}, \forall x, y \in \mathcal{R}$$

The field $\mathcal{Q}$ is not a complete metric space.
Its completion $\mathbb{R}$, nevertheless is not algebraically closed.
For instance, $f(x) = x^2 + 1$, doesn't split in $\mathbb{R}$.
So we define the splitting field for $f(x)$ over $\mathbb{R}$
i.e. the smallest field extension of $\mathbb{R}$ such that $f(x)$ has roots.

Consider the principal ideal $\langle f(x) \rangle$ in $\mathbb{R}[x]$
since $f(x)$ is irreducible, then $\langle f(x) \rangle$ is a maximal ideal.
Then the quotient ring $\mathbb{C} = \frac{\mathbb{R}[x]}{\langle f(x) \rangle}$ is a field!
which is the splitting field of $f(x)$
The field $\mathbb{C}$ has no further splitting extensions! All polynomials in $\mathbb{C}[x]$ split in $\mathbb{C}$.
So as soon as we forced one polynomial. $f(x) = x^2 + 1$ to have roots, we in fact imposed that all polynomials have roots.

Topology:

The Topology of $\mathbb{C}$ is isomorphic to $\mathbb{R}^2$.
Thus $\mathbb{C}$ is locally compact, but not compact space.
The Alexandroff compactification says that we can add a point at infinity to $\mathbb{C}$ so that $\mathbb{C} \cup \{\infty\}$ compact.

Definition 1.3.1: Alexandroff compactification

- A set $U \supseteq \mathbb{C} \cup \{\infty\}$ is an open neighborhood of $\{\infty\}$ if $U = \mathbb{C} \cup \{\infty\} \setminus K$
When $K \supseteq \mathbb{C}$.

$\mathbb{C} \cup \{\infty\}$ is called the Riemann sphere.

Definition 1.3.2: Holomorphic Functions

A function $f : \Omega \rightarrow \mathbb{C}$ is holomorphic where $\Omega \subseteq \mathbb{C}$ is holomorphic iff:

$$\lim_{z \rightarrow z_0} \frac{f(z) - f(z_0)}{z - z_0} = f'(z_0) \text{ exists, } \forall z_0 \in \Omega$$

$$f(z) = f(x, y) = u(x, y) + iv(x, y), \text{ where } z = x + iy \in \Omega$$

$$u(z) = \operatorname{Re}(f(z)), v(z) = \operatorname{Im}(f(z))$$

$f : \Omega \rightarrow \mathbb{C}$ being holomorphic of course implies that $u, v : \Omega \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$ differentiable.
If we take $f(z_0) = z_0 = 0$ and we write

$$\frac{\partial}{\partial z} = \frac{1}{2} \left(\frac{\partial}{\partial x} - i \frac{\partial}{\partial y} \right), \frac{\partial}{\partial \bar{z}} = \frac{1}{2} \left(\frac{\partial}{\partial x} + i \frac{\partial}{\partial y} \right)$$

1.4. LECTURE 3 (02-10) – ALGEBRAIC STRUCTURE OF COMPLEX NUMBERS 7

Then,

$$\frac{f(z) - f(z_0)}{z - z_0} = \frac{f(z)}{z} = \left(\frac{\partial f}{\partial z}\right)_{(z_0=0)} + \frac{\bar{z}}{z} \left(\frac{\partial f}{\partial \bar{z}}\right)_{(z_0=0)} + o(z)$$

For real $z \rightarrow 0$, we have $\frac{\bar{z}}{z} = 1$, and for purely imaginary $z \rightarrow 0$, we have $\frac{\bar{z}}{z} = -1$.
we have to restrict $\frac{\partial f}{\partial \bar{z}} = 0$

Cauchy-Riemann equations:

$$\begin{cases} \frac{\partial u}{\partial x} = \frac{\partial v}{\partial y} \\ \frac{\partial u}{\partial y} = -\frac{\partial v}{\partial x} \end{cases}$$

$$f'(z) = \frac{\partial f}{\partial z} = \left(\frac{\partial u}{\partial x} + i \frac{\partial v}{\partial x}\right)(x, y), \text{ where } z = x + iy \in \Omega$$

Nevertheless, f being holomorphic is not equivalent to say f satisfies the Cauchy-Riemann equations.

Indeed we take $f(z) = \frac{z^5}{|z|^4}$ on $\mathbb{C} \setminus \{0\}$ and $f(0) = 0$.

We can observe that $f(z)$ satisfies the Cauchy-Riemann equations on $\mathbb{C}$ but f is not even continuous at $z = 0$.

Theorem 1.3.1: Looman Menchoff Theorem

A continuous function $f : \Omega \cup \mathbb{C} \rightarrow \mathbb{C}$ is holomorphic iff f satisfies the Cauchy-Riemann equations.

$$\begin{aligned} \forall f, g \in H(\Omega) \\ (fg)' &= f'g + fg' \\ \left(\frac{f}{g}\right)' &= \frac{f'g - fg'}{g^2} \\ (g \circ f)'(z) &= g'(f(z)) \cdot f'(z) \end{aligned}$$

§1.4 Lecture 3 (02-10) – Algebraic Structure of Complex numbers

§1.4.1 Algebraic Structure of Complex numbers

Lemma 1.4.1

Consider $(\mathbb{R}^2, +)$ as a vector space. Then any definition of multiplication on $\mathbb{R}^2$ compatible with the vector space structure, which transforms $\mathbb{R}^2$ into a field, defines a field isomorphism with $\mathbb{C}$.

Comments:

The assumption that the multiplication is compatible with the vector space structure means that the scalar multiplication coincides with the field multiplication in the following space.

$$(\mathbb{R}^2, +, \times)$$

1.4. LECTURE 3 (02-10) – ALGEBRAIC STRUCTURE OF COMPLEX NUMBERS 8

and $1 \in \mathbb{R}$ is the multiplicative identity
then

$$au = (a1) \times u, a \in \mathbb{R}$$

Let $L = \{a1 : a \in \mathbb{R}\}$

Then L is isomorphic with $\mathbb{R}$

The addition in $\mathbb{R}^2$ as a vector space coincides with the addition in $\mathbb{R}^2$ as a field.

Proof of the Lemma:

Essentially we have to find a $i \in \mathbb{R}^2$ such that $i^2 = -1$

Since $\mathbb{R}^2$ is a two-dimensional vector space, if we pick any $j \in \mathbb{R}^2 \setminus L$

We know that $1, j, j^2$ must be linearly dependent.

Then there must exist $a, b \in \mathbb{R}$ such that $aj^2 + bj + c1 = 0$

Then,

$$\begin{aligned} a(j^2) + 2\frac{b}{2a}j + c &= 0 \\ a\left(j + \frac{b}{2a}\right)^2 + c - a\left(\frac{b}{2a}\right)^2 &= 0 \\ \left(j + \frac{b}{2a}\right)^2 &= \frac{1}{a}\left(-c + a\left(\frac{b}{2a}\right)^2\right) \end{aligned}$$

Necessarily, $-c + a\left(\frac{b}{2a}\right)^2 < 0$

Define

$$i = \frac{\sqrt{a}\left(j + \frac{b}{2a}\right)}{\sqrt{-a\left(\frac{b}{2a}\right)^2 + c}}$$

§1.4.2 Square roots

Every complex number has a square root.

Also we can write the 2 square roots in a quite explicit way (related to fundamental theorem of algebra).

Lemma 1.4.2

$$\sqrt{\alpha + i\beta} = \pm \left(\sqrt{\frac{\alpha + \sqrt{\alpha^2 + \beta^2}}{2}} + \frac{\beta}{|\beta|} \sqrt{\frac{-\alpha + \sqrt{\alpha^2 + \beta^2}}{2}} \right)$$

Proof:

(Notation for complex numbers: $\alpha + i\beta, x + iy, \dots$)

We need to find $z = x + iy$ such that $z^2 = (x + iy)^2 = \alpha + i\beta$

So $x^2 - y^2 = \alpha, 2xy = \beta$

Now,

$$(x^2 + y^2)^2 = (x^2 - y^2)^2 + 4x^2y^2 = \alpha^2 + \beta^2$$

So,

$$\begin{aligned}
 x^2 + y^2 &= \sqrt{\alpha^2 + \beta^2} \\
 x^2 - y^2 &= \alpha \\
 \Rightarrow x^2 &= \frac{\alpha + \sqrt{\alpha^2 + \beta^2}}{2} \\
 y^2 &= \frac{-\alpha + \sqrt{\alpha^2 + \beta^2}}{2} \\
 x &= \pm \sqrt{\frac{\alpha + \sqrt{\alpha^2 + \beta^2}}{2}} \\
 y &= \pm \sqrt{\frac{-\alpha + \sqrt{\alpha^2 + \beta^2}}{2}} \\
 \sqrt{\alpha + i\beta} &= \pm \left(\sqrt{\frac{\alpha + \sqrt{\alpha^2 + \beta^2}}{2}} + \frac{\beta}{|\beta|} \sqrt{\frac{-\alpha + \sqrt{\alpha^2 + \beta^2}}{2}} \right)
 \end{aligned}$$

Definition 1.4.1: Algebraic Extension

Let F be a field and E be a subfield of F .

We say that $x \in F$ is algebraic in the field E if x satisfies the following equation:

$$a_n x^n + a_{n-1} x^{n-1} + \cdots + a_1 x + a_0 = 0 \text{ for } a_n, a_{n-1}, \dots, a_1 \in E, a_n \neq 0$$

if every $x \in F$ is algebraic in E , then we say that F is an algebraic extension of E . We say that a field F is algebraically closed if it does not have any strictly larger algebraic extension.

A field containing F is called an algebraic closure if it is a closed algebraic extension of F .

Comments:

- $\mathbb{R}$ is not an algebraic extension of $\mathbb{Q}$.
If this was true, then every real number would be a root of a polynomial with rational coefficients:

$$q_n x^n + q_{n-1} x^{n-1} + \cdots + q_1 x + q_0 = 0 \text{ (an algebraic number)}$$

So the cardinality of the set of algebraic numbers is countable (transcendental numbers are real numbers which are not algebraic, e and π for example).

- $\mathbb{Q}(\sqrt{2}) = \{q + \sqrt{2}q', q, q' \in \mathbb{Q}\}$ is algebraic over $\mathbb{Q}$.
- $\mathbb{R}$ is not algebraically closed.
- The fundamental theorem of algebra states that any nonconstant polynomial with complex coefficients has at least one complex root.
Actually this is equivalent to saying that all the roots of such a polynomial are complex.
- The field of complex numbers is algebraically closed.

Chapter 2

Honors Theory of Probability

§2.1 Lecture 1 (02-03) Introduction to Probability

Office Hour: Wed 12:30-1:30pm, Fri 3:30-4:30pm W910

- Homework: weekly
- Grades: 5% participation, 15% homework, 40% midterm, final group project (Max 4 people a group, presentation 20%, Final report 20% 10 pages)

§2.1.1 Intro

Why do we need modern theory of probability?

Example 1

- Coin flip 7 times, what is $P[\text{first outcome and fifth outcome are Head}]$?
sol:

$$\Omega = (x_1, x_2, x_3, x_4, x_5, x_6, x_7)$$

$$A = (x_1, x_2, x_3, x_4, x_5, x_6, x_7), x_1 = x_5 = H$$

$$P(A) = \frac{|\Omega|}{|A|} = \frac{1}{4}$$

- Stock Price (mathematically, geometric Brownian motion, Stochastic process, such that $t \rightarrow S_t$ is continuous but nowhere differentiable)
What is $P[S_T \geq 100]$?

$$\Omega = C[0, T] = \{\text{continuous function}, f[0, T] \rightarrow R\}$$

$$A = \{f \in C[0, T] | f(t) \geq 100\}$$

requires measure theory that defines $P[S_T \geq 100]$

In modern Prob, Probability Space: (Ω, F, P) , Ω is sample space, F is σ -algebra (meaningful subset of σ), P is probability measure ($P : F \rightarrow [0, 1]$).

Topics covered:

- Probability space, σ -algebra, measure, Conditional Probability and Independence
- Random variables (measurable functions), distribution
- Expectation (Lebesgue integral), Conditional distribution and expectation, functions of random variables, Radon-Nikodym Derivative
- Random walks

- generating functions, characteristic functions
- Branching processes
- Convergence of random variables, Law of large numbers, Monte-Carlo Method
- Central Limit Theorem
- Time permitting: Large deviations, Markov Chains

§2.1.2 Probability Space

(Ω, F, P)

Example 2: Coinflip and Stock Price

- Coin flip infinite times,

$$\Omega = \{(x_1, x_2, \dots), x_i = H, T\}$$

Let A be the event of 10^6 consecutive Tails,

$$A = \bigcup_{i=1}^{+\infty} \{x_i = x_{i+1} = \dots = x_{i+10^6-1} = 0, (x_i \in \Omega)\}$$

$$P[A] = 1$$

- Discrete Stock Price model, $t=0,1,2,\dots,T$
 T is maturing time, time step $\Delta t \ll T$

$$N = \frac{T}{\Delta t}$$

$$\text{price go} \begin{cases} \nearrow \text{ by factor : } e^{\sigma\sqrt{\Delta t}} \\ \searrow \text{ by factor : } e^{-\sigma\sqrt{\Delta t}} \end{cases}$$

$$\Omega = \{(x_1, x_2, \dots, x_N), x_i = 0 \text{ or } 1\}$$

Stock price at time t : $\forall \omega \in \Omega$

$$S_N(\omega) = S_0 e^{\sum_{i=1}^N x_i \sigma \sqrt{\Delta t} e^{(N - \sum_{i=1}^N x_i)(-\sigma\sqrt{\Delta t})}}$$

$$S : \Omega \rightarrow R(\text{Random Variable})$$

Event: return at T is positive but not more than 10%:

$$\{\omega \in \Omega : S_N(\omega) \in (S_0, 1.1S_0]\}$$

Example 3: Gambling

- Gambling:

- start with $\{0,1,2,\dots\}$ each time bet an integer amount
 - if amount of money =0, stays at 0
- wealth process: $\Omega = \{0,1,2,\dots\} \times \{0,1,2,\dots\} \times \dots$
wealth after time n: (random variable) $X_n : \Omega \rightarrow N, (x_1, x_2, \dots, x_n) \rightarrow x_n$
 (X_n) is a Markov Chain (future only depends on present state, but not the past)

$$\begin{aligned} \text{Event: } \{ \text{State } j \text{ is reached from state } i \} \\ &= \{ \omega \in \Omega : \exists n \in N, X_0(\omega) = i, X_n(\omega) = j \} \\ &= \bigcup_{m=1}^{+\infty} \{ \omega \in \Omega : X_0(\omega) = i, X_n(\omega) = j \} \end{aligned}$$

§2.2 Lecture 2 (02-05) – Algebra

§2.2.1 algebra and σ -algebra

in practice, want F to be closed under $\bigcap, \bigcup, ^c$

Definition 2.2.1

Let $\mathcal{A}$ be a collection of subsets of Ω , $\mathcal{A}$ is an algebra iff:

- $\Omega \in \mathcal{A}$
- if $A, B \in \mathcal{A}$ then $A \cap B \in \mathcal{A}$
- if $A \in \mathcal{A}$ then $A^c \in \mathcal{A}$

Remark 1

if $A, B \in \mathcal{A} \rightarrow A \cap B \in \mathcal{A}$, because $A \cap B = (A^c \cup B^c)^c$

Fact:

- ① $P(\Omega)$ (powerset) = $\{A : A \subset \Omega\}$ is an algebra
- ② smallest algebra/trivial algebra: $\{\emptyset, \Omega\}$
- ③ Let $\mathcal{A}_1, \mathcal{A}_2$ be two algebras of Ω

$$\mathcal{A}_1 \cap \mathcal{A}_2 = \{B \in \Omega : B \in \mathcal{A}_1 \text{ and } B \in \mathcal{A}_2\} \text{ is an algebra}$$

if $(\mathcal{A}_j)_{j \in J}$ is a family of algebras, then $\bigcap_{j \in J} \mathcal{A}_j$ is an algebra

- ④ Let $\mathcal{E}$ be any collection of subsets of Ω

$$a(\mathcal{E}) = \bigcap_{\substack{\mathcal{A} \supseteq \mathcal{E} \\ \mathcal{A} \text{ is an algebra}}} \mathcal{A} \text{ is an algebra}$$

$a(\mathcal{E})$ is an algebra by ③

in fact, $a(\mathcal{E})$ is the smallest algebra containing $\mathcal{E}$

It is called the algebra generated by $\mathcal{E}$

- ⑤ Let $A \subseteq \Omega, \mathcal{E} = \{A\}$
Then

$$a(\mathcal{E}) = \underbrace{\{A, A^c, \Omega, \emptyset\}}_f$$

Proof:

- $a(\mathcal{E}) \subseteq f$
notice that f is an algebra since $f \supseteq \mathcal{E}$, therefore $f \supseteq a(\mathcal{E})$ because $a(\mathcal{E})$ is the smallest algebra containing $\mathcal{E}$.
- $f \subseteq a(\mathcal{E})$:

$$A \in a(\mathcal{E}), A^c \in a(\mathcal{E})$$

because $a(\mathcal{E})$ is an algebra, $\emptyset, \Omega \in a(\mathcal{E})$

- ⑥ $\pi = \{A_1, A_2, \dots, A_n\}, \Omega = \bigcup_{i=1}^n A_i, A_i \cap A_j = \emptyset$ Then:

$$a(\pi) = \left\{ \bigcup_{i \in I} A_i, \text{ for } I \subset 1, 2, \dots, n \right\} = \text{finite disjoint union of } (A_i)_{i=1}^n$$

- ⑦ Let $\mathcal{A}$ be an algebra of $\mathbb{R}$
Let $X : \Omega \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$ be a function
Then

$$\underbrace{\{X^{-1}(A), A \in \mathcal{A}\}}_{\{\omega \in \Omega : X(\omega) \in A, \text{ for some } A \in \mathcal{A}\}} \text{ is an algebra of } \Omega$$

Hint:

$$X^{-1}(A \cup B) = (X^{-1}(A)) \cup (X^{-1}(B))$$

- ⑧ $\Omega = \mathbb{R}, \mathcal{E} = \{\text{left open right closed intervals}\} = \begin{cases} (a, b], & -\infty \leq a < b < +\infty \\ (a, +\infty), & a \in \mathbb{R} \end{cases}$

Then:

$$\begin{aligned} a(\mathcal{E}) &= \text{"finite disjoint union of elements in } \mathcal{E}\text{"} \\ &= \underbrace{\{I_1 \cup \dots \cup I_k, I_j \in \mathcal{E}, I_j \cap I_j = \emptyset(f)\}}_f \end{aligned}$$

Hint:

- $f \subseteq a(\mathcal{E})$ straightforward
- $a(\mathcal{E}) \subseteq f$
 - check f is an algebra
 - since $\mathcal{E} \subset f$, $a(\mathcal{E})$ is the smallest algebra containing $\mathcal{E}$, $a(\mathcal{E}) \subseteq f$
 - $(a, b]^c = \underbrace{(-\infty, a] \cup (b, +\infty)}_{\in f}$

Lemma 2.2.1

In Probability, if $(A_k)_{k=1}^n$ are disjoint events, we have $P(\bigcup_{k=1}^{+\infty} A_k) = \sum_{k=1}^{+\infty} P(A_k)$

Definition 2.2.2: σ – algebra

A σ – algebra (σ – field) $\mathcal{A}$ is an collection of subsets of Ω such that

- $\Omega \in \mathcal{A}$
- if $A_1, A_2, \dots \in \mathcal{A}$ then $\bigcup_{i=1}^{+\infty} A_i \in \mathcal{A}$
- if $A \in \mathcal{A}$, then $A^c \in \mathcal{A}$

Remark 2

if $A_1, A_2, \dots \in \mathcal{A}$ then $\bigcap_{i=1}^{+\infty} A_i \in \mathcal{A}$

σ – algebra represents the collection of information determined by partial derivatives

Example 1

- coinflips infinity many times

$$\Omega = \{(x_1, x_2, \dots) | x_i = 0, 1\} = (0, 1)^\infty$$

After observing first outcome, $f_1 = \{\emptyset, \Omega, A_0, A_1\}$

Where $A_0 = \{(0, x_2, x_3, \dots), x_i = 0, 1\}$, $A_1 = \{(1, x_2, x_3, \dots), x_i = 0, 1\}$

After observing second outcome, $f_2 = \{\emptyset, \Omega, A_0, A_1, A_00, A_01, A_10, A_11\}$

Where $A_{00} = \{(0, 0, x_3, x_4, \dots), x_i = 0, 1\}$, $A_{01} = \{(0, 1, x_3, x_4, \dots), x_i = 0, 1\} \dots$

After observing first n outcomes,

$$f_n = \{\emptyset, \Omega, (A_j)_{j \in (\sigma 1)^n} \text{ and finite disjoint unions}\}$$

and

$$f_1 \subseteq f_2 \subseteq \dots \subseteq f_n \subseteq \dots$$

Proposition 2.2.0

- ① intersection of σ – algebras is a σ – algebra
- ② Let $\mathcal{E}$ be a collection of subsets of Ω

$$\sigma(\mathcal{E}) = \bigcap_{\substack{f \supseteq \mathcal{E} \\ f \text{ is an algebra}}} f \text{ is a smallest } \sigma \text{ – algebra that contains } \mathcal{E}$$

- ③ For any collection $\mathcal{E}$, we have $a(\mathcal{E}) \subseteq \sigma(\mathcal{E})$

- ④ For any collection $\mathcal{E}$, we have $\sigma(a(\mathcal{E})) = \sigma(\mathcal{E})$

Hint:

$$a(\mathcal{E}) \subseteq \sigma(\mathcal{E}) \rightarrow \sigma(a(\mathcal{E})) \subseteq \sigma(\mathcal{E})$$

$$\mathcal{E} \subseteq \sigma(a(\mathcal{E})) \rightarrow \sigma(\mathcal{E}) \subseteq \sigma(a(\mathcal{E}))$$

§2.3 Recitation 1 (02-07) – Problem Solving

§2.3.1 Basic Set Theory

Definition 2.3.1: $\cup, \cap, ^c$

De Morgan's Law:

$$\left(\bigcup_{j \in J} A_j\right)^c = \bigcap_{j \in J} A_j^c$$

$$\left(\bigcap_{j \in J} A_j\right)^c = \bigcup_{j \in J} A_j^c$$

Definition 2.3.2: $\setminus$

$$A \setminus B = A \cap B^c$$

$$\text{Then } A \setminus B = A \cap B^c = A \setminus (A \cap B) = B^c \setminus A^c$$

Remark 1

$$\bigcap_{n \geq 1} A_n = A_1 \setminus \left(\bigcup_{j \geq 2} (A_1 - A_j)\right) \text{ (ex)}$$

§2.3.2 Limits of Sets

Definition 2.3.3: Limit Sets

Let $(A_n)_{n \geq 1}$ be a sequence of sets, then

$$B_k = \bigcup_{n \geq k} A_n, C_k = \bigcap_{n \geq k} A_n$$

Then B_k is increasing, C_k is decreasing

Define:

$$\limsup_{n \rightarrow +\infty} A_n = \lim_{k \rightarrow +\infty} B_k = \bigcap_{k \geq 1} \bigcup_{n \geq k} A_n$$

$$\liminf_{n \rightarrow +\infty} A_n = \lim_{k \rightarrow +\infty} C_k = \bigcup_{k \geq 1} \bigcap_{n \geq k} A_n$$

Definition 2.3.4: liminf, limsup of sequence

$$\limsup a_n = \inf_{k \geq 1} \sup_{n \geq k} a_n, \liminf a_n = \sup_{k \geq 1} \inf_{n \geq k} a_n$$

When $\limsup A_n = \liminf A_n$, Then we say $\lim_{n \rightarrow +\infty} A_n$ exist and $\lim_{n \rightarrow +\infty} A_n = \limsup A_n = \liminf A_n$

In probability,

$$\begin{aligned} \limsup A_n &= \{A_n \text{ occurs infinitely often}\} \\ &= \{A_n.i.o\} \\ x \in \limsup A_n &\Leftrightarrow \forall k \in \mathbb{N}, \exists n \geq k \text{ such that } x \in A_n \\ &\Leftrightarrow A_n.i.o \\ \liminf A_n &= \{A_n \text{ occurs eventually}\} \\ &\Leftrightarrow \exists k \in \mathbb{N}, \forall n \geq k, x \in A_n \end{aligned}$$

Remark 2

1. if A_n increases, then $\limsup A_n = \lim_{n \rightarrow \infty} A_n = \bigcup_{n \geq 1} A_n$
if A_n decreases, then $\liminf A_n = \lim_{n \rightarrow \infty} A_n = \bigcap_{n \geq 1} A_n$

2.

$$(\limsup A_n)^c = \liminf A_n, (\liminf A_n)^c = \limsup A_n$$

§2.3.3 Exercise

1. $A_k = \begin{cases} E, & \text{if } k \text{ is odd} \\ F, & \text{if } k \text{ is even} \end{cases}$

Then $\limsup A_n = E \cup F, \liminf A_n = E \cap F$

2. Let $f_n : \mathbb{R} \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$, Let $A = \{x \in \mathbb{R} : \lim_{n \rightarrow \infty} f_n(x) = f(x)\}$ Then,

$$\begin{aligned} A^c &= \bigcup_{k=1}^{+\infty} \bigcap_{m=1}^{+\infty} \bigcup_{n=m}^{+\infty} \{x : |f_n(x) - f(x)| \geq \frac{1}{k}\} \\ &= \bigcup_{k=1}^{+\infty} [\limsup_n \{x : |f_n(x) - f(x)| \geq \frac{1}{k}\}] \end{aligned}$$

3. Suppose that $\lim_{n \rightarrow \infty} f_n(x) = f(x), \forall x \in \mathbb{R}$
Then

$$\begin{aligned} \{x : f(x) \leq t\} &= \bigcap_{k=1}^{+\infty} \bigcup_{m=1}^{+\infty} \bigcup_{n=m}^{+\infty} \{x \in \mathbb{R} : f_n(x) < t + \frac{1}{k}\} \\ &= \bigcap_{k=1}^{+\infty} [\liminf_n \{x : f_n(x) < t + \frac{1}{k}\}] \end{aligned}$$

Proof:

1. ex2: Want

$$A = \bigcup_{k \geq 1} \bigcap_{n \geq 1} \bigcup_{m \geq n} \{x : |f_n(x) - f(x)| \geq \frac{1}{k}\}$$

$$f_n(x) \rightarrow f(x) \text{ iff } \forall \epsilon > 0, \exists N \geq N, |f_n(x) - f(x)| < \epsilon$$

$$\{x : f_n(x) \rightarrow f(x)\} = \bigcap_{\epsilon > 0} \bigcup_N \bigcap_{n \geq N} \{x : |f_n(x) - f(x)| < \epsilon\},$$

USE that $\{|f_n - f| < \epsilon\}$ is monotone increasing in n

Review on mapping:

$$f : X \rightarrow Y, f^{-1} : Y \rightarrow X$$

Basic properties:

- $f(\bigcup_{i \in I} A_i) = \bigcup_{i \in I} f(A_i)$
- $f(\bigcap_{i \in I} A_i) \subset \bigcap_{i \in I} f(A_i)$

For (B_i) subset of Y :

- if $B_1 \subset B_2, f^{-1}(B_1) \subset f^{-1}(B_2)$
- $f^{-1}(\bigcup_{i \in I} B_i) = \bigcup_{i \in I} f^{-1}(B_i)$
- $f^{-1}(B^c) = (f^{-1}(B))^c$

Definition 2.3.5: Indicator Mapping

$$1_A : X \rightarrow \{0, 1\}$$

$$1_A(x) = \begin{cases} 1, & x \in A \\ 0, & x \notin A \end{cases}$$

Exercise:

1. $1_{\limsup A_n} = \limsup 1_{A_n}$
2. $1_{\liminf A_n} = \liminf 1_{A_n}$

Proof:

if

$$\begin{aligned} 1_{\limsup A_n}(x) = 1 &\Leftrightarrow x \in \limsup A_n \\ &\Leftrightarrow \forall k \in \mathbb{N}, \exists n \geq k, x \in A_n \\ &\Leftrightarrow \forall k \in \mathbb{N}, \exists n \geq k, 1_{A_n}(x) = 1 \\ &\Leftrightarrow \limsup 1_{A_n}(x) \geq 1 \text{ (Definition of limsup)} \\ &\Leftrightarrow 1_{\limsup A_n}(x) = 1 \end{aligned}$$

Exercise: Let $\mathcal{A}_1, \mathcal{A}_2$ be algebras of Ω

1. show that $\underbrace{\mathcal{A}_1 \cap \mathcal{A}_2}_{B \subset \Omega: B \in \mathcal{A}_1, B \in \mathcal{A}_2}$ is an algebra

2. show that $\underbrace{\mathcal{A}_1 \cup \mathcal{A}_2}_{B \subset \Omega: B \in \mathcal{A}_1 \text{ or } B \in \mathcal{A}_2}$ is an algebra iff $\mathcal{A}_1 \subseteq \mathcal{A}_2$ or $\mathcal{A}_2 \subseteq \mathcal{A}_1$

Proof: Suppose by contradiction that

$$\exists A_1 \in \mathcal{A}_1 \text{ but } A_1 \notin \mathcal{A}_2 \text{ and } A_2 \in \mathcal{A}_2 \text{ but } A_2 \notin \mathcal{A}_1 \text{ and } \mathcal{A}_1 \cup \mathcal{A}_2 \text{ is an algebra}$$

Therefore:

$$A_1 \cup A_2 \in \mathcal{A}_1 \cup \mathcal{A}_2, A_1 \setminus A_2 = A_1 \cap \underbrace{A_2^c}_{\mathcal{A}_1 \cup \mathcal{A}_2} \in \mathcal{A}_1 \cup \mathcal{A}_2$$

$$A_2 \setminus A_1 = A_2 \cap A_1^c \in \mathcal{A}_1 \cup \mathcal{A}_2$$

$\Rightarrow$ at least two of

$$(A_1 \setminus A_2) \cup (A_2 \setminus A_1), A_1 \setminus A_2, A_2 \setminus A_1 \text{ are in } \mathcal{A}_1 \text{ or } \mathcal{A}_2$$

Assume in $\mathcal{A}_1$

$\Rightarrow$ (by $\mathcal{A}_1$ is an algebra, all three sets are in $\mathcal{A}_1$)

$$\Rightarrow A_2 = \underbrace{(A_1 \cup A_2)}_{\in \mathcal{A}_1} \setminus \underbrace{(A_1 \setminus A_2)}_{\in \mathcal{A}_1} \in \mathcal{A}_1$$

Contradiction!

§2.4 Lecture 3 (02-10)

Recall σ -algebra:

Example 1

- ① We know $\Omega = \mathbb{R}$,

$$\mathcal{E} = \{\text{left open right closed intervals}\} = \begin{cases} (a, b], & -\infty \leq a < b < +\infty \\ (a, +\infty), & a \in \mathbb{R} \end{cases}$$

Then we know:

$$a(\mathcal{E}) = \{\text{"finite disjoint union of elements in } \mathcal{E}\}$$

What is $\sigma(a(\mathcal{E}))$?

$\sigma(\epsilon) = \text{Borel Sets } \mathcal{B}(\mathbb{R})$

Any "reasonable" subset of $\mathbb{R}$ is in $\sigma(\epsilon)$

- $(a, b) \in \sigma(\epsilon) : (a, b) = \bigcup_{n \geq 1} \underbrace{(a, b - \frac{1}{n}]}_{\in \sigma(\epsilon)} \in \sigma(\epsilon)$
- any singleton $\{a\} \in \sigma(\epsilon)$, because $\{a\} = \bigcap_{n \geq 1} \underbrace{(a - \frac{1}{n}, a + \frac{1}{n})}_{\in \sigma(\epsilon)} \in \sigma(\epsilon)$
- any countable set is in $\sigma(\epsilon)$ (e.g. $\mathbb{Q}$)
- The set of transcendental numbers is in $\sigma(\epsilon)$, because the set of algebraic numbers is countable

Definition 2.4.1: measurable set

A pair (Ω, F) , where F is a σ -algebra of Ω , is called a measurable space
Any set $A \in F$ is called a measurable set

§2.4.1 Content and Measure**Definition 2.4.2: Content**

Let $\mathcal{A}$ be an algebra of Ω , A set function $\mu : \mathcal{A} \rightarrow [0, +\infty)$ is called a content iff:

- $\mu(\emptyset) = 0$
- if $A, B \in \mathcal{A}$ and $A \cap B = \emptyset$, then $\mu(A \cup B) = \mu(A) + \mu(B)$ (finite additivity)

Lemma 2.4.1

Let $\mu : \mathcal{A} \rightarrow [0, +\infty)$ be a content, $\forall A, B \in \mathcal{A}$ then:

- ① $\mu(A) + \mu(B) = \mu(A \cup B) + \mu(A \cap B)$
- ② if $A \subset B$, and $\mu(A) < +\infty$, then $\mu(B \setminus A) = \mu(B) - \mu(A)$
- ③ if $A \subset B$, then $\mu(A) \leq \mu(B)$
- ④ if $A_1, A_2, \dots \in \mathcal{A}$, then $\mu(\bigcup_{i=1}^n A_i) = \sum_{i=1}^n \mu(A_i)$
- ⑤ if $A_1, A_2, \dots \in \mathcal{A}$, $A_i \cap A_j = \emptyset$ and $\bigcup_{i=1}^{+\infty} A_i \in \mathcal{A}$ then $\mu(\bigcup_{i=1}^{+\infty} A_i) \geq \sum_{i=1}^{+\infty} \mu(A_i)$

Proof:

finite add:

1:

$$\begin{aligned}\mu(B) &= \mu(A \cup B) + \mu(B \setminus A) \\ \mu(A) + \mu(B \setminus A) &= \mu(A \cup B) \\ \Rightarrow \mu(A) + \mu(B) &= \mu(A \cup B) + \mu(A \cap B)\end{aligned}$$

4:

Let $B_1 = A_1, B_2 = A_2 \setminus A_1, B_3 = A_3 \setminus (A_1 \cup A_2), \dots$

Then B_j are disjoint and $\bigcup_{i=1}^n B_i = \bigcup_{i=1}^n A_i$

By finite add for B_j :

$$\mu\left(\bigcup_{i=1}^n A_i\right) = \mu\left(\bigcup_{i=1}^n B_i\right) = \sum_{i=1}^n (\mu(A_i) \setminus \bigcup_{j=1}^{i-1} A_j) \leq \sum_{i=1}^n \mu(A_i)$$

5:

For $\forall n$,

$$\mu\left(\bigcup_{i=1}^{+\infty} A_i\right) \geq \mu\left(\bigcup_{i=1}^n A_i\right) = \sum_{i=1}^n \mu(A_i) \text{ send } n \nearrow +\infty \text{ to conclude}$$

Remark 1

In general. $\mu(\bigcup_{i=1}^{+\infty} A_i) \neq \sum_{i=1}^{+\infty} \mu(A_i)$ although $\mu(\bigcup_{i=1}^n A_i) = \sum_{i=1}^n \mu(A_i)$ require continuity of μ

Counterexample:

- Let $\Omega = \mathbb{R}, \mathcal{A} = a(\epsilon), \forall A \in \mathcal{A}$,

$$\mu(A) = \lim_{L \rightarrow +\infty} \frac{\overbrace{[A \cup [0, L]]}^{\text{Length of interval}}}{L} \text{ "Density of A in } [0, +\infty)\text{"}$$

Then μ is a content.

Take $A_i = (i, i+1]$, then $\mu((i, i+1]) = 0$, But $\mu(\bigcup_{i=0}^{+\infty} A_i) = \mu((0, +\infty)) = 1$

- For $\mathbb{R}, a(\epsilon)$, Given $A \in a(\epsilon)$

$$\begin{aligned} \mathring{A} &= \{x \in A : \exists r_x > 0, s.t. (x - r_x, x + r_x) \subset A\} \\ \partial A &= \bar{A} \setminus \mathring{A} \end{aligned}$$

$$\mu(A) = \begin{cases} 2, & \text{if } 0 \in \mathring{A} \\ 1, & \text{if } 0 \in \partial A \\ 0, & \text{else} \end{cases}$$

Then μ is a content

However, $A_i = (\frac{1}{i+1}, \frac{1}{i}]$, $\mu(A_i) = 0$, But $\mu(\bigcup_{i=1}^{+\infty} A_i) = \mu((0, 1]) = 1$

Example:

- (Discrete Probability)

$$\Omega = \{\omega_1, \dots, \omega_n\} \text{ finite set, } P = P(\Omega)$$

Set $A_i = \{\omega_i\}$, $P(A_i) = P(\omega_i) = P_i$ such that $\sum_{i=1}^n P_i = 1$

Then $P : P(\Omega) \rightarrow [0, 1]$ defines a content on $P(\Omega)$ by extending the P using finite additivity:

$$\forall A \in P(\Omega), P(A) = \sum_{\omega \in A} P(\omega)$$

- $\Omega = \mathbb{R}$, algebra $\mathcal{A} = a(\epsilon) = \{ \text{finite disjoint union of elements in } \epsilon \}$
Define $m : a(\epsilon) \rightarrow [0, +\infty)$, set $m([a, b]) = b-a$,
and extend by additivity:

$$m(I) = \sum_{i=1}^n m(I_i), \text{ if } I = I_1 \cup \dots \cup I_n, I_j \cap I_i = \emptyset$$

$\Rightarrow m$ is a content on $(\mathbb{R}, a(\epsilon))$

m can be further extended to $(\mathbb{R}, \sigma(\epsilon))$, called Lebesgue Measure

Definition 2.4.3: countably additive

A content $\mu : \mathcal{A} \rightarrow [0, +\infty)$ is countably additive if:

$$\mu\left(\bigcup_{i=1}^{+\infty} A_i\right) = \sum_{i=1}^{+\infty} \mu(A_i) \text{ for every disjoint } A_1, A_2, \dots \in \mathcal{A}$$

Definition 2.4.4: measure

Let (Ω, F) be an measurable space, then a content $\mu : F \rightarrow [0, +\infty)$ that is countably additive is called a measure

Lemma 2.4.2

$m : a(\epsilon) \rightarrow [0, +\infty)$ is countably additive

Proof:

Let $A_1, A_2, \dots \in a(\epsilon)$, (A_k) disjoint, $A := \bigcup_{i=1}^{+\infty} A_i \in a(\epsilon)$

Want to show :

$$m(A) = \sum_{i=1}^{+\infty} m(A_i)$$

we can write, using $A, (A_k) \in a(\epsilon)$, $A = \bigcup_{j=1}^n I_j$, where $I_j \in \epsilon$ and (I_j) disjoint

$A_j = \bigcup_{k=1}^{n_i} J_{ik}$, where $J_{ik} \in \epsilon, (J_{ik})$ disjoint

Then:

$$\begin{aligned} m(A) &= \sum_{j=1}^n m(I_j) \\ &= \sum_{j=1}^n \sum_{i=1}^{+\infty} \sum_{k=1}^{n_i} m(I_j \cap J_{ik}) \\ &= \sum_{i=1}^{+\infty} m\left(\underbrace{\bigcup_{j=1}^n I_j}_A \cap \underbrace{\left(\bigcup_{k=1}^{n_i} J_{ik}\right)}_{A_i}\right) \\ &= \sum_{i=1}^{+\infty} m(A_i) \end{aligned}$$

Chapter 3

Partial Differential Equations

§3.1 Lecture 1 (02-03) Initial and Boundary Conditions

§3.1.1 What are the PDEs?

$$\frac{\partial u}{\partial t} = \frac{\partial^2 u}{\partial x^2} + \frac{\partial^2 u}{\partial y^2} - u \quad (3.1)$$

$$u = u(x, y, t) \quad (3.2)$$

(3.1) is a second order PDE

§3.1.2 Classical solutions

To simplify, we consider here equations of one unknown function u of one or more variable

By a solution we mean a sufficiently smooth function u that satisfies the PDE at every point of the domain of its definition(D).

Sometimes, we will have to impose some boundary conditions on the domain D .

$C^n = \{u : D \rightarrow R : n\text{-times continuous differentiable w.r.t all variables} \}$ n is the order of the equation

Example 1

- Heat equation:

$$\frac{\partial u}{\partial t} = \frac{\partial^2 u}{\partial x^2}$$

$$u = u(x, t)$$

$$(t, x) \in D \subset R^2$$

$$u(t, x), \frac{\partial u}{\partial t}, \frac{\partial u}{\partial x}, \frac{\partial^2 u}{\partial x^2}, \frac{\partial^2 u}{\partial t^2}$$

$$n = 2$$

$$\frac{\partial^2 u}{\partial x \partial t} = \frac{\partial^2 u}{\partial t \partial x} \in C^2$$

$$u \in C^2(D)$$

- Some Solution:

$$u(t, x) = t + \frac{x^2}{2}, D = R^2$$

$$u(t, x) = \frac{e^{-\frac{x^2}{4t}}}{2\sqrt{\pi t}}, D = \{(t, x) : t > 0\}$$

$$u(t, x) = e^{-t+ix} = e^{-t}\cos(x) + ie^{-t}\sin(x), D = \mathbb{R}^2$$

§3.1.3 Initial and Boundary Conditions

What is Initial data?

$$u(0, x) = u_0(x)$$

What are Boundary Conditions? rigorous definition of Boundary

- Dirichlet Boundary Condition: $u(t, x)|_{\partial D} = g(t, x)$
- Neumann Boundary Condition: When the normal derivative of u is specified $\frac{\partial u}{\partial n}$ where n is the normal to the boundary $\partial(D)$

$$\frac{\partial u}{\partial n}(t, x) = g(t, x)$$

- Mixed Boundary Condition: Combination of Dirichlet and Neumann

§3.1.4 Linear and Nonlinear waves

Stationary waves

$$\frac{\partial u}{\partial t} = 0 \tag{3.3}$$

$$u = u(t, x) \tag{3.4}$$

This is a first order linear homogeneous PDE

Solution of the form $u = u(t) = c, \forall c \in \mathbb{R}$

Let's integral (3.3) :

$$0 = \int_0^t \frac{\partial u}{\partial t}(s, x) ds = u(t, x) - u(0, x)$$

Thus if an initial conditional

$$u(0, x) = f(x)$$

$$u(t, x) = f(x), \forall t, x$$

Thus for any given $f \in C^1(\mathbb{R})$, we have a solution of (3.3) and this is a stationary wave

The domain of this solution is $\mathbb{R}$ if f is defined everywhere on $\mathbb{R}$

Power of domain to change the solution:

Consider the ODE:

$$\frac{du}{dt} = 0, D = (-\infty, 0) \cup (0, \infty)$$

The solution is:

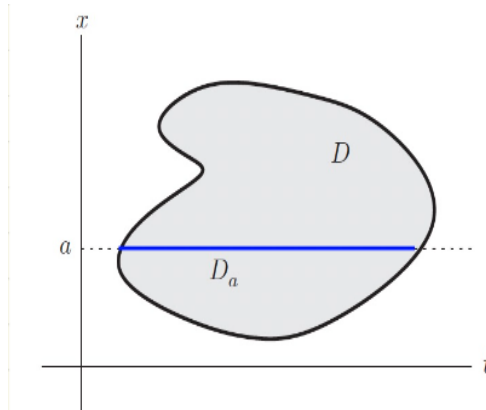
$$u(t) = \begin{cases} c_1, t < 0 \\ c_2, t > 0 \end{cases} \quad \forall c_1, c_2 \in \mathbb{R}$$

similarly, for the PDE in example (3.3):

$$u(t, x) = \begin{cases} 0, x > 0 \\ x^2, x \leq 0, t > 0 \\ -x^2, x \leq 0, t < 0 \end{cases}$$

3.2. LECTURE 2 (02-05) – UNIFORM TRANSPORT AND TRAVELING WAVES 24

it is a $\mathbb{C}^1$ solution of (3.3) on $\mathbb{R}^2 \setminus \{(0, x) : x \leq 0\}$, so it is not a function of x alone. Actually, it is not hard to check that if u is a classical solution to (3.3), defined on domain $D \subset \mathbb{R}^2$ whose intersection with any horizontal line $D_a = D \cap \{(t, a) : t \in \mathbb{R}\}, \forall a \in \mathbb{R}$ is either empty or a connected interval, then $u(t, x) = f(x)$ is only a function of x .



§3.2 Lecture 1 (02-05) Transport and Traveling waves

§3.2.1 uniform transport

Let us consider the linear, homogeneous first order PDE:

$$\frac{\partial u}{\partial t} + c \frac{\partial u}{\partial x} = 0 \quad (3.5)$$

$$u = u(0, x) = f(x) \quad (3.6)$$

$$x \in \mathbb{R}, t_0 = 0, t - t_0 = t, c \in \mathbb{R}$$

use change of variable:

$$\xi = x - ct$$

ξ is called characteristic variable

let's look for a solution of (3.5) under the form

$$u(t, x) = v(t, \xi) = v(t, x - ct)$$

use chain rule:

$$\begin{aligned} \frac{\partial u}{\partial t} &= \frac{\partial v}{\partial t} - c \frac{\partial v}{\partial \xi} \\ \frac{\partial u}{\partial x} &= \frac{\partial v}{\partial \xi} \end{aligned}$$

Thus:

$$0 = \frac{\partial u}{\partial t} + c \frac{\partial u}{\partial x} = \frac{\partial v}{\partial t} - c \frac{\partial v}{\partial \xi} + c \frac{\partial v}{\partial \xi} = \frac{\partial v}{\partial t}$$

Conclusion:

$$\frac{\partial v}{\partial t} = 0$$

Solution is constant $v(\xi)$

$$u(t, x) = v(\xi) = v(x - ct)$$

Proposition 3.2.0

if u solves (3.5), then u has the form $u(t, x) = v(x - ct)$ where v is a function of one variable that is $\mathbb{C}^1$ -smooth.

Actually, v is satisfying

$$u(0, x) = v(x) = f(x)$$

Conclusion:

$$\begin{cases} \frac{\partial u}{\partial t} + c \frac{\partial u}{\partial x} = 0 \\ u = u(0, x) = f(x) \end{cases}$$

The solution is

$$u(t, x) = f(x - ct)$$

$f(x - ct)$ is a traveling wave solution moving at velocity c :

if $c > 0$, the wave moves to the right

if $c < 0$, the wave moves to the left

if $c = 0$, the wave is stationary

Example 1

$$\begin{cases} \frac{\partial u}{\partial t} + 2 \frac{\partial u}{\partial x} = 0 \\ u = u(0, x) = \frac{1}{1+x^2} \end{cases}$$

The solution is

$$u(t, x) = \frac{1}{1 + (x - 2t)^2}$$

The lines $x = ct + k$ are called the characteristic lines for the equation (3.5)

on the characteristic lines, the solution is always constant

on geometric interpretation, $u(t, x) = f(x - ct) = f(k)$

Consider the equation:

$$\frac{\partial u}{\partial t} + c \frac{\partial u}{\partial x} + au = 0 \quad (3.7)$$

where a and c are given numbers.

Use change of variable:

$$u(t, x) = v(t, \xi) = v(t, x - ct)$$

we will get by the same computation

$$\frac{\partial v}{\partial t} + av = 0$$

The solution will be

$$\begin{aligned} v(\xi) &= e^{-at} f(\xi) \\ u(t, x) &= v(t, \xi) = v(x - ct) = e^{-at} f(x - ct) \end{aligned}$$

So,

$$\begin{cases} u(t, x) = e^{-at} f(x - ct) \\ u(0, x) = f(x) \end{cases}$$

§3.2.2 Nonuniform transport

$$\frac{\partial u}{\partial t} + c(x) \frac{\partial u}{\partial x} = 0 \quad (3.8)$$

In the uniform case (c constant), characteristic line is $x=ct+k$ (the solution of ODE below)

$$\frac{dx}{dt} = c$$

In the general non-uniform case, we can still define characteristic curves

$$\frac{d}{dt}x(t) = c(x(t))$$

Let's show that the solutions of (3.8) are constants along the characteristic curves $(t, x(t))$. We need to check that $u(t, x(t)) = h(t)$ is constant of t . compute the derivative of $h(t)$

$$\begin{aligned} \frac{d}{dt}h(t) &= \frac{d}{dt}u(t, x(t)) = \frac{\partial u}{\partial t} + \frac{\partial u}{\partial x} \cdot \frac{dx}{dt} \\ &= \frac{\partial u}{\partial t} + c(x(t)) \cdot \frac{\partial u}{\partial x} = 0 \end{aligned}$$

$h(t)$ and thus $u(t, x(t))$ is constant along the characteristic curves

Definition 3.2.1

The graph of a solution of the ODE

$$\frac{d}{dt}x(t) = c(x(t))$$

is called a characteristic curve for the transport equation (3.8) with speed $c(x)$

Thus at each point (t, x) the slope of the characteristic curve is $c(x)$ (the wave speed). Thus, we proved:

Proposition 3.2.0

The solutions to the linear transport equation (3.8) are constant along the characteristic curves

In the particular case $c(x)=c$, the characteristic curves are straight lines of slope c

Moreover,

(3.8) is an autonomous first order ODE which can be "solved" using the method of separation of variables

Assume that $c(x) \neq 0$

$$\begin{aligned} \frac{dx(t)}{dt} &= c(x(t)) \\ \frac{dx}{c(X)} &= dt \rightarrow \\ \beta(x) &= \int \frac{dx}{c(x)} = t + k \end{aligned}$$

3.2. LECTURE 2 (02-05) – UNIFORM TRANSPORT AND TRAVELING WAVES 27

Thus characteristic curves satisfies the implicit equation

$$\beta(x) = t + k$$

We can find x from the equality using β^{-1} (the inverse of β)

$$\begin{aligned}\beta(x) &= t + k \\ \beta^{-1}\beta(y) &= y \\ x(t) &= \beta^{-1}(t + k)\end{aligned}$$

Remark 1

How to determine where $c(x_0) = 0$?

Solve this ODE

$$\begin{cases} \frac{dx}{dt} = c(x) \\ x(t_0) = x_0 \end{cases}$$

and $x(t) = x_0$ will be the characteristic curve going through (t_0, x_0)

From the proposition, we know that $u(t, x(t)) = \text{constant}$

$$\begin{aligned}u(t, x(t)) &= v(k) \\ &= v(\beta(x(t)) - t)\end{aligned}$$

where k is the constant determining the characteristic curve $(t, x(t))$

$$\begin{aligned}u(t, x) &= v(\xi) \\ \text{where } \xi &= \beta(x) - t\end{aligned}$$

which we will call characteristic variable

$$u(t, x) = v(\beta(x) - t) \tag{3.9}$$

This formula may fail at points where c vanishes

$$\begin{aligned}t &= 0 \\ u(0, x) &= f(x) = v(\beta(x) - 0) \\ f(x) &= v(\beta(x)) \\ v(\xi) &= f(\beta^{-1}(\xi)) \\ &= f \cdot \beta^{-1}(\xi) \\ u(t, x) &= f \cdot \beta^{-1}(\beta(x) - t)\end{aligned}$$

This is the formula for the solution of (3.8) in the general case which is:

$$\begin{cases} \frac{\partial u}{\partial t} + c(x) \frac{\partial u}{\partial x} = 0 \\ u(0, x) = f(x) \end{cases}$$

Example 2

Let us apply the method of characteristics to solve the nonuniform transport equation:

$$\frac{\partial u}{\partial t} + \frac{1}{x^2 + 1} \frac{\partial u}{\partial x} = 0$$

The characteristic curves are the graphs of the solutions of the ODE:

$$\frac{dx}{dt} = \frac{1}{x^2 + 1}$$

$$\begin{aligned} \Rightarrow \beta(x) &= \int (x^2 + 1) dx \\ &= \frac{x^3}{3} + x \\ &= t + k \end{aligned}$$

It is not particularly helpful to find $x(t)$ from this equation.

characteristic variable ξ is given by $\xi = \frac{x^3}{3} + x - t$ and the general solution is of the form

$$u = v\left(\frac{x^3}{3} + x - t\right)$$

where v is any $\mathbb{C}^1$ function.

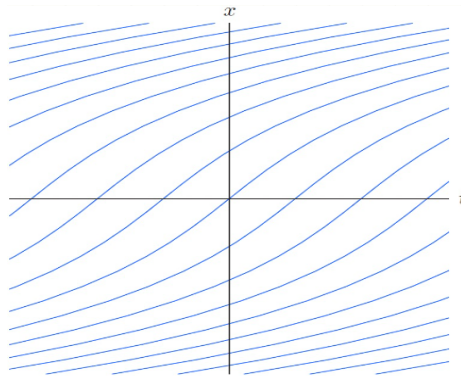
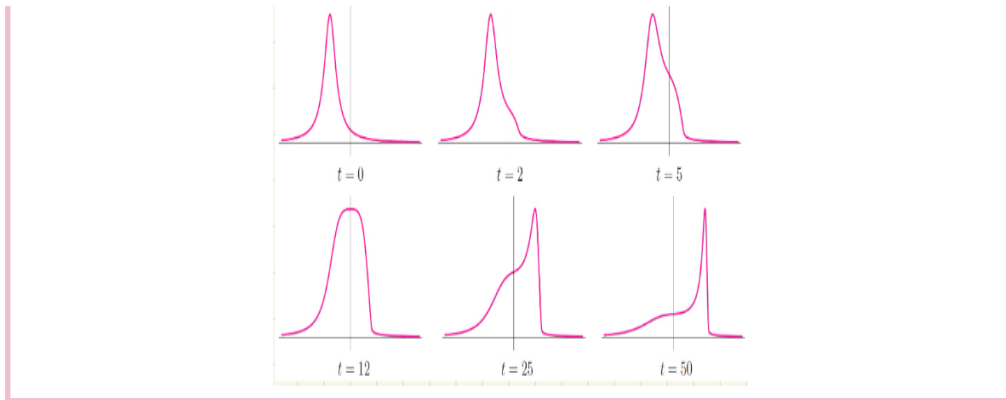


Figure 3.1: Characteristic curves for $u_t + (x^2 + 1)^{-1} u_x = 0$

In the case of the initial condition:

$$u(0, x) = \frac{1}{1 + (x + 3)^2}$$

The solution looks as follows:



§3.3 Lecture 3 (02-10)-Nonlinear transport and shocks

Nonlinear transport equation:

$$\frac{\partial u}{\partial t} + u \frac{\partial u}{\partial x} = 0 \quad (3.10)$$

characteristic equation:

$$\frac{dx(t)}{dt} = u(t, x(t)), \quad x(t) \text{ is the characteristic curve} \quad (3.11)$$

Let's show that u the solution of (3.10) is constant along the characteristic curves $x(t)$ we need to check that $h(t) = u(t, x(t))$ is constant of t

$$\begin{aligned} \frac{d}{dt} h(t) &= \frac{\partial u}{\partial t} + \frac{\partial u}{\partial x} \cdot \frac{dx}{dt} \\ &= \frac{\partial u}{\partial t} + u(t, x(t)) \cdot u(t, x(t)) \\ &= 0 \quad (\text{by (3.10)}) \end{aligned}$$

As u is constant along the characteristic curves, it must be of the form function of characteristic variable:

$$\begin{aligned} \xi &= x - ut \\ u(t, x) &= f(x - tu(t, x)) \end{aligned} \quad (3.12)$$

Example 1

Suppose the initial data is:

$$f(\xi) = \alpha\xi + \beta$$

Then (3.12) becomes:

$$u = \alpha(x - tu) + \beta$$

$$u(t, x) = \frac{\alpha x + \beta}{1 + \alpha t} \quad (3.13)$$

As far as $1 + \alpha t \neq 0$, the graph of the solution is line

If $\alpha > 0$,

$$\begin{aligned} u(t, x) &\rightarrow 0 \\ t &\rightarrow +\infty \end{aligned}$$

If $\alpha < 0$, then the solution blows up as $t \rightarrow -\frac{1}{\alpha}$ since $\dot{x} = u(t, x(t))$
As $u(t, x(t))$ is a constant,

$$\begin{aligned} u(t, x(t)) &= u(0, x(0)) \\ &= u(0, y) \\ &= f(y) \end{aligned}$$

Our characteristic ODE is:

$$\begin{aligned} \dot{x} &= f(x) \\ \Rightarrow x(t) &= tf(y) + y \\ \Rightarrow u(t, x(t)) &= u(t, tf(y) + y) \\ &= u(0, y) \\ &= f(y), \forall t \\ u(t, tf(y) + y) &= f(y) \forall t, y \\ u(t, x) &= f(y) \\ x &= tf(y) + y \end{aligned}$$

I find $y \in \mathbb{R}$ Suppose let $f(y) = y$

$$\begin{aligned} x &= ty + y, y = \frac{x}{t+1} \\ \Rightarrow u(t, x) &= f(y) = y = \frac{x}{t+1} \\ \Rightarrow u(t, x) &= \frac{x}{t+1} \end{aligned}$$

which agrees with (3.13) for $\alpha = 1, \beta = 0$

There is a problem with this construction that becomes clear when considering the following example:

$$u(0, x) = f(x) = \frac{1}{2}\pi - \tan^{-1}(x)$$

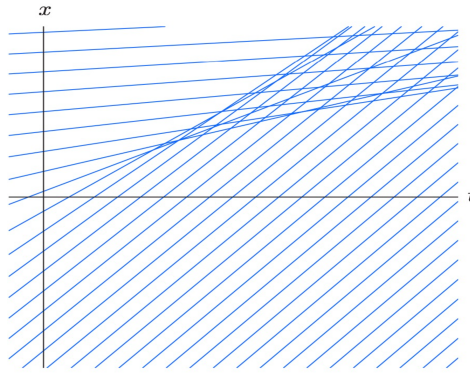


Figure 3.2: Characteristic lines for $u(0, x) = \frac{1}{2}\pi - \tan^{-1}(x)$

Two characteristic lines that are not parallel must cross and the value of the solution is supposed to be equal the slope of the characteristic line passing through the point.

At a crossing point, the solution will have to be equal to two different values, one corresponding to each characteristic line.

While mathematically, such a multiply valued solutions are possible, they are physically untenable.

One needs to decide which (if any) of the possible values is the physically appropriate.

§3.3.1 The wave equation:d'Alembert's formula

Let us consider the 1D wave equation:

$$\frac{\partial^2 u}{\partial t^2} = c^2 \frac{\partial^2 u}{\partial x^2} \quad (3.14)$$

where $c > 0$ is a given constant

the wave speed, the initial data are of the form:

$$u(0, x) = f(x), \quad \frac{\partial u}{\partial t} = g(x) \quad (3.15)$$

The initial value problem is to find a C^2 function that solves (3.14) and satisfies (3.15)

In this section, we will consider only the 1D case posed on the whole line $\mathbb{R}$

Let us define the wave operator:

$$\square = \frac{\partial^2}{\partial t^2} - c^2 \frac{\partial^2}{\partial x^2}$$

Thus the wave equation becomes:

$$\square u = 0$$

In analogy with the elementary factorization

$$t^2 - c^2 x^2 = (t - cx)(t + cx)$$

We can write

$$\square = \left(\frac{\partial}{\partial t} - c \frac{\partial}{\partial x} \right) \left(\frac{\partial}{\partial t} + c \frac{\partial}{\partial x} \right)$$

Now, if

$$\left(\frac{\partial}{\partial t} + c\frac{\partial}{\partial x}\right)u = 0 \quad (3.16)$$

then u is automatically a solution of the wave equation, because

$$\square u = \left(\frac{\partial}{\partial t} - c\frac{\partial}{\partial x}\right)\left(\frac{\partial}{\partial t} + c\frac{\partial}{\partial x}\right)u = 0$$

Clearly, (3.16) is a transport equation with constant wave speed c , and its solutions are traveling waves with speed c :

$$u(t, x) = p(\xi) = p(x - ct)$$

where p is an arbitrary function.

If $p \in \mathbb{C}^2$, $u(t, x)$ is a classical solution of the wave equation (3.14).

The factorization of $\square$ can be written in the reverse order:

$$\square = \left(\frac{\partial}{\partial t} + c\frac{\partial}{\partial x}\right)\left(\frac{\partial}{\partial t} - c\frac{\partial}{\partial x}\right)$$

Solving the transport equation:

$$\left(\frac{\partial}{\partial t} - c\frac{\partial}{\partial x}\right)u = 0$$

with $-c$ instead of c , we get:

$$u(t, x) = q(x + ct)$$

where q is an arbitrary function.

the solution represent traveling waves moving to the left with constant speed $c > 0$

If $q \in \mathbb{C}^2$, we get a second family of solutions to the wave equation.

Thus there are both left and right traveling-wave solution,

Thus, we have two families of solutions of the wave equation:

$$\begin{aligned} u(t, x) &= p(x - ct) \\ u(t, x) &= q(x + ct), \forall p, q \in \mathbb{C}^2 \end{aligned}$$

Any linear combination of these solutions is still a solution of (3.14):

$$u(t, x) = p(x - ct) + q(x + ct), c > 0$$

Theorem 3.3.1

Every solution to (3.14) can be written in the form

$$u(t, x) = p(x - ct) + q(x + ct), \forall p, q \in \mathbb{C}^2 \quad (3.17)$$

Proof:

$$\begin{aligned}\xi &= x - ct \\ \eta &= x + ct \\ x &= \frac{\xi + \eta}{2}, t = \frac{\eta - \xi}{2c} \\ u(t, x) &= u\left(\frac{\eta - \xi}{2c}, \frac{\xi + \eta}{2}\right) \\ \text{so, } u(t, x) &= v(\xi, \eta)\end{aligned}$$

Lets find a PED for v:

$$\begin{aligned}\frac{\partial u}{\partial t} &= c\left(-\frac{\partial v}{\partial \xi} + \frac{\partial v}{\partial \eta}\right) \\ \frac{\partial^2 u}{\partial t^2} &= c^2\left(\frac{\partial^2 v}{\partial \xi^2} - 2\frac{\partial^2 v}{\partial \xi \partial \eta} + \frac{\partial^2 v}{\partial \eta^2}\right) \\ \frac{\partial^2 u}{\partial x^2} &= c^2\left(\frac{\partial^2 v}{\partial \xi^2} + 2\frac{\partial^2 v}{\partial \xi \partial \eta} + \frac{\partial^2 v}{\partial \eta^2}\right) \\ 0 &= \square u = \frac{\partial^2 u}{\partial t^2} - c^2 \frac{\partial^2 u}{\partial x^2} \\ &= -4c^2 \frac{\partial^2 v}{\partial \xi \partial \eta} = 0 \\ \Leftrightarrow \frac{\partial^2 v}{\partial \xi \partial \eta} &= 0 \\ \frac{\partial}{\partial \xi} \frac{\partial v}{\partial \eta} &= 0 \\ \Leftrightarrow \frac{\partial w}{\partial \xi} &= 0 \\ \Leftrightarrow w(\xi, \eta) &= w(\eta) \\ \Leftrightarrow w &= r(\zeta)\end{aligned}$$

where ζ is an arbitrary function of η

$$w = \frac{\partial v}{\partial \eta} = r(\zeta)$$

Integrating we get:

Now we want to solve the initial value problem (3.17):

$$\begin{aligned}
 u(t, x) &= p(x - ct) + q(x + ct) \\
 u(0, x) &= p(x) + q(x) = f(x) \\
 \frac{\partial u}{\partial t} &= -cp'(x) + cq'(x) = g(x) \\
 \begin{cases} p'(x) + q'(x) &= f(x) \\ -cp'(x) + cq'(x) &= g(x) \end{cases} \\
 2p'(x) &= f(x) + \frac{g(x)}{c} \\
 p(x) &= \frac{1}{2}f(x) - \frac{1}{2c} \int_0^x g(z)dz + a \\
 &\text{where } a \text{ is an integration constant} \\
 q(x) &= f(x) - p(x) \\
 &= \frac{1}{2} + \frac{1}{2c} \int_0^x g(z)dz - a \\
 u(t, x) &= p(\xi) + q(\eta) \\
 &= \frac{f(\xi) + f(\eta)}{2} - \frac{1}{2c} \int_0^\xi g(z)dz + \frac{1}{2c} \int_0^\eta g(z)dz \\
 &= \frac{f(\xi) + f(\eta)}{2} + \frac{1}{2c} \int_\eta^\xi g(z)dz
 \end{aligned}$$

This is called d'Alembert's solution to the IVP (3.15)

Theorem 3.3.2: d'Alembert's solution

The solution of the problem:

$$\begin{aligned}
 \frac{\partial^2 u}{\partial t^2} &= c^2 \frac{\partial^2 u}{\partial x^2} \\
 u(0, x) &= f(x) \\
 \frac{\partial u}{\partial t} &= g(x), x \in \mathbb{R}
 \end{aligned}$$

is given by:

$$u(t, x) = \frac{f(x + ct) + f(x - ct)}{2} + \frac{1}{2c} \int_{x-ct}^{x+ct} g(z)dz, \forall f \in \mathbb{C}^2, g \in \mathbb{C}^1$$

External forcing:

$$\frac{\partial^2 u}{\partial t^2} = c^2 \frac{\partial^2 u}{\partial x^2} + F(x, t)$$

F is a given nice function:

$$u(0, x) = 0$$

$$\frac{\partial u}{\partial t} = 0$$

$$\xi = x - ct$$

$$\eta = x + ct$$

$$u(t, x) = v(\xi, \eta)$$

$$\square u = F(t, x) = F\left(\frac{\eta - \xi}{2c}, \frac{\eta + \xi}{2}\right) = -4c^2 \frac{\partial^2 v}{\partial \xi \partial \eta}$$

$$\frac{\partial v}{\partial \xi} - \frac{\partial v}{\partial \eta} = r(\eta) - r(\xi)$$

Chapter 4

Algorithm

§4.1 Lecture 1 (02-03) Asymptotic bounds and big O

Definition 4.1.1: big-Theta notation(=)

Let $f, g : N \rightarrow R^+$, we say that $f(n) = \Theta(g(n))$ if there $\exists a, b > 0$ and $n_0 \in \mathbb{N}$ such that $a \cdot g(n) \leq f(n) \leq b \cdot g(n)$ for all $n > n_0$.

Intuitively, $f(n) = \Theta(g(n))$ means that $f(n)$ grows as fast as $g(n)$ up to a constant when n tends to infinity.

Examples: $3n = \Theta(n)$, $2n^2 + 7n = \Theta(n^2)$, $\ln n^2 = \Theta(\log n)$

Definition 4.1.2: big-O notation($\leq$)

Let $f, g : N \rightarrow R^+$, we say that $f(n) = O(g(n))$ if $\exists n_0 \in \mathbb{N}$ and $b > 0$ such that $f(n) \leq b \cdot g(n)$ for all $n > n_0$.
 $\lim_{n \rightarrow \infty} \sup \frac{f(n)}{g(n)} < +\infty$

Definition 4.1.3: big-Omega notation($\geq$)

Let $f, g : N \rightarrow R^+$, we say that $f(n) = \Omega(g(n))$ if $\exists n_0 \in \mathbb{N}$ and $a > 0$ such that $a \cdot g(n) \leq f(n)$ for all $n > n_0$.
 $\lim_{n \rightarrow \infty} \inf \frac{f(n)}{g(n)} > 0$

Remark 1

$$f(n) = \Theta(g(n)) \Leftrightarrow f(n) = O(g(n)) \text{ and } f(n) = \Omega(g(n))$$
$$f(n) = O(g(n)) \Leftrightarrow g(n) = \Omega(f(n))$$

Definition 4.1.4: little-o notation($<$)

We write $f(n) = o(g(n))$ if for any $b > 0$ there $\exists n_0 \in \mathbb{N}$ such that $f(n) < b \cdot g(n)$ for all $n > n_0$.

Definition 4.1.5: little-omega notation($>$)

We write $f(n) = \omega(g(n))$ if for any $a > 0$ there $\exists n_0 \in \mathbb{N}$ such that $a \cdot g(n) < f(n)$ for all $n > n_0$.

Remark 2

$f(n) = o(g(n)) \Rightarrow f(n) = O(g(n))$ and $f(n) \neq \Theta(g(n))$
 $f(n) = \omega(g(n)) \Rightarrow f(n) = \Omega(g(n))$ and $f(n) \neq \Theta(g(n))$
 $f(n) = \omega(g(n)) \Leftrightarrow g(n) = \omega(f(n))$

$$n^{1+e}, n \log(n), e \rightarrow 0$$

Theorem 4.1.1

Any Algorithm has to check at least $\log(n+1)$ entries of the sorted array for searching an element in the worst case

§4.2 Recitation 1 (02-07)–Problem Solving

Notation	Bounding Conditions	Relation	Type
$T(n) = O(f(n))$	$\exists c > 0, \exists n_0, \forall n \geq n_0, T(n) \leq cf(n)$	$\leq$	O
$T(n) = \Omega(f(n))$	$\exists c > 0, \exists n_0, \forall n \geq n_0, T(n) \geq cf(n)$	$\geq$	Ω
$T(n) = \Theta(f(n))$	$\exists c_1, c_2 > 0, \exists n_0, \forall n \geq n_0, c_1 f(n) \leq T(n) \leq c_2 f(n)$	$=$	Θ
$T(n) = o(f(n))$	$\forall c > 0, \exists n_0, \forall n \geq n_0, T(n) < cf(n)$	$<$	o
$T(n) = \omega(f(n))$	$\forall c > 0, \exists n_0, \forall n \geq n_0, T(n) > cf(n)$	$>$	ω

Possible useful formula:

$$\int_1^n x^k dx = \frac{n^{k+1}}{k+1} - \frac{1}{k+1}$$

1. Multiplication Rule. Prove that for $h(n) = \Omega(1)$, if $f(n) = \Theta(g(n))$ then $f(n) \cdot h(n) = \Theta(g(n) \cdot h(n))$ (The same also holds for $O, \Omega, \omega, \omega$)

Solution:

Since $f(n) = \Theta(g(n))$, $\exists c_1, c_2 > 0, \exists n_0$ such that

$$c_1 g(n) \leq f(n) \leq c_2 g(n), \forall n \geq n_0$$

Since $h(n) = \Omega(1)$, there exist constants $c_3 > 0$ and n_1 such that

$$h(n) \geq c_3, \forall n \geq n_1$$

Combining the two, we have:

$$c_1 g(n) h(n) \leq f(n) h(n) \leq c_2 g(n) h(n)$$

$$\text{Therefore } f(n) h(n) = \Theta(g(n) h(n))$$

2. Addition Rule. Let $f_1, \dots, f_k : N \rightarrow R_{\geq 0}$ for a fixed number k and $f(n) = \sum_{i=1}^k f_i(n)$. Prove that if $f_i(n) = O(f_1(n))$ for all $i \in \{1, \dots, k\}$, then $f(n) = \Theta(f_1(n))$. Here

f_1 can be replaced with any one of $f_1, \dots, f_k$

Solution:

Since $f_i(n) = O(f_1(n))$, there exist constants c_i and n_0 such that

$$f_i(n) \leq c_i f_1(n), \forall n \geq n_0$$

Therefore,

$$\sum_{i=1}^k f_i(n) \leq \sum_{i=1}^k c_i f_1(n) = C f_1(n) \text{ where } C = \sum_{i=1}^k c_i$$

Additionally, there exists at least one $f_j(n) = \Omega(f_1(n))$, so $\sum_{i=1}^k f_i(n) = \Theta(f_1(n))$

3. Let f and g be non-negative functions. Define $T(n) = \max(f(n), g(n))$. Prove that $T(n) = \Theta(f(n) + g(n))$

Solution:

Since $\max(f(n), g(n)) \leq f(n) + g(n)$, we have $T(n) = O(f(n) + g(n))$

Also, $f(n) + g(n) \leq 2\max(f(n), g(n))$, so $T(n) = \Omega(f(n) + g(n))$

Therefore, $T(n) = \Theta(f(n) + g(n))$

4. Let f and g be non-decreasing real-valued functions defined on positive integers and $f(1) \geq 1$ and $g(1) \geq 1$. Prove or disprove that $f(n) = O(g(n)) \Rightarrow 2^{f(n)} = O(2^{g(n)})$

Solution:

Since $f(n) = O(g(n))$, there exists a constant $c > 0$ and n_0 such that

$$f(n) \leq c \cdot g(n), \forall n \geq n_0$$

Therefore,

$$2^{f(n)} \leq 2^{c \cdot g(n)}$$

Since 2^c is constant, we conclude that $2^{f(n)} = O(2^{g(n)})$

5. Prove that $\log(n!) = \Theta(n \log n)$. Hint: To show an upper bound, compare $n!$ with n^n . To show a lower bound, compare it with $\left(\frac{n}{2}\right)^{\frac{n}{2}}$

Solution:

We know that:

$$\log(n!) = \log(1) + \log(2) + \dots + \log(n)$$

Since $\log(n)$ is increasing, the sum can be bounded by:

$$\log(n!) \leq \sum_{k=1}^n \log(n) = n \log(n)$$

From the bound, we can use the fact that $\log(k) \geq \log\left(\frac{n}{2}\right)$ for all $k \geq \frac{n}{2}$

Hence, we can sum the lower half of the terms to get:

$$\log(n!) \geq \sum_{k=\frac{n}{2}}^n \log(k) \geq \sum_{k=\frac{n}{2}}^n \log\left(\frac{n}{2}\right) = \frac{n}{2} \log\left(\frac{n}{2}\right)$$

6. Show that $c^n = o(n!)$ for any constant C

Solution:

We need to prove that

$$\lim_{n \rightarrow \infty} \frac{c^n}{n!} = 0$$

Using the recursive relation:

$$\frac{c^n}{n!} = \frac{c^{n-1}}{(n-1)!} \times \frac{c}{n}$$

As $n \rightarrow \infty$, $\frac{c}{n} \rightarrow 0$, Thus,

$$\lim_{n \rightarrow \infty} \frac{c^n}{n!} = 0$$

7. Show that $c^{n^{1.001}} = \omega(n!)$ for any constant C . Hint: For any fixed numbers $p, q > 0$, we have $n^p = \omega(\log^q n)$

Solution:

We need to prove that

$$\lim_{n \rightarrow \infty} \frac{c^{n^{1.001}}}{n!} = \infty$$

Taking the algorithm, we have:

$$\log\left(\frac{c^{n^{1.001}}}{n!}\right) = n^{1.001} \log(c) - \log(n!)$$

Since $\log(n!) \approx n \log n$, and $n^{1.001}$ grows faster than $n \log n$, we conclude that

$$\lim_{n \rightarrow \infty} \log\left(\frac{c^{n^{1.001}}}{n!}\right) = \infty$$

$$\text{So, } \lim_{n \rightarrow \infty} \frac{c^{n^{1.001}}}{n!} = \infty$$

Therefore, $c^{n^{1.001}} = \omega(n!)$

8. Show $\sum_{i=1}^n i^k = \Theta(n^{k+1})$. Hint: Show that $n^{k+1} - (n-1)^{k+1} = \Theta(n^k)$

Solution:

Upperbound: Since $i^k \leq n^k$, we have

$$\sum_{i=1}^n i^k \leq \sum_{i=1}^n n^k = n^{k+1}$$

Lowerbound: Using the integral approximation

$$\sum_{i=1}^n i^k \geq \int_1^n x^k dx = \frac{n^{k+1}}{k+1} - \frac{1}{k+1}$$

Therefore,

$$\sum_{i=1}^n i^k = \Theta(n^{k+1})$$

9. Search for the peak. Suppose we have an array $A[1..n]$ and we know that there exists some k (value unknown) such that $A[1] < A[2] < \dots < A[k]$ and $A[k] > A[k+1] > \dots > A[n]$. We call $A[k]$ the peak of A . Design an algorithm to find the peak and analyze it in $O(\log n)$ time.

Solution:

Use Binary Search Algorithm:

1. Set $l = 1, r = n$

2. While $l < r$ do

3. Set $m = \left\lfloor \frac{l+r}{2} \right\rfloor$

4. If $A[m] < A[m+1]$ then $l = m + 1$

5. Else $r = m$

6. Return l

Analysis:

Let $T(n)$ be the time complexity of the algorithm

Let $n_0 = 1$

Let $c = 1$

Let $T(n) = T\left(\frac{n}{2}\right) + c$

Let $T(n) = O(\log n)$

10. 3SUM in a sorted array. Let $A[1 \dots n]$ be a sorted array. We want to see $A[i] + A[j] + A[k] = x$ for some different i, j, k , where x is a given number. Design an algorithm $3SUM(n, a, x)$ which can return (i, j, k) or 0 if no such three elements exist. How fast can this problem be solved?

Solution:

fix one element $A[i]$, then use two pointers on the remaining array to find $A[j] + A[k] = x - A[i]$

The time complexity is $O(n^2)$

Algorithm 3SUM(n,a,x):

Input: Array A of n integers, integer x

Output: indices i,j,k such that $A[i] + A[j] + A[k] = x$ or return "No solution" if no such triplet exists
for i=0 to n-1 do

 //Avoid duplicates by skipping repeated elements

 if i>0 and $A[i] == A[i-1]$

 continue

 left=i+1, right=n-1

 while left<right do

 sum= $A[i] + A[left] + A[right]$

 if sum==x

 return i,left,right //Found the triplet

 if sum<x

 left=left+1 //increase the sum by moving left pointer to the right

 else

 right=right-1 //decrease the sum by moving right pointer to the left

return "No solution" //no such triplet exists